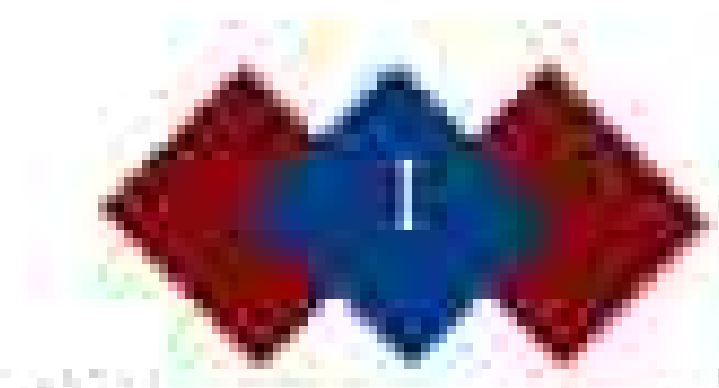




The Mexican Revolution

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Abstract

This paper tries to describe La Revolución Mexicana, or the Mexican Revolution, focusing on its causes and effects. The Mexican Revolution began in 1910, ending a period of dictatorship that had lasted for 70 years. It began as a movement to protest against the dictatorship of Porfirio Díaz. Under his rule, the Mexican government was in poor shape. He was corrupt, he was a dictator, he was heavily sponsored foreign money in order to be powerful and his state failed. However, he failed to protect his country. His right, for they were very rich, industrial and improved. They caused a divide between the rich and the poor. This paper also highlights the “Four Horse” revolution launched by Francisco I. Madero, a wealthy politician. This revolution was opposed by Díaz, but it could not happen and was postponed and finally delayed for after he resigned. Díaz was the last dictator of Mexico and he died

solidity of a series of complex events that transformed Mexican society. Furthermore, this paper will examine the key leaders who had competing goals against Mexico's government. These leaders included Francisco Zapata, who led the Zapotecan movement which demanded immediate contributions of land among the people under the slogan "There is a Land!" (Land and Freedom) and Francisco Villa, a revolutionary general who attacked against the central power and led guerrilla campaigns against wealthy landowners. Finally, this paper will discuss how the Revolutionary changed Mexican national identity, including parts of indigenous and national heritage.

Keywords: Mexican Revolution, Porfirio Díaz, dictatorship, working class, labor rights, inequality, Francisco Madero, Huerta, revolution, Francisco Zapata, Zapotecas, Francisco Villa, rural, peasants, nationalism.

Introduction

The Mexican Revolution, La Revolución Mexicana, spans over a 10-year period (1910-1920) when Mexico changed from the corrupt dictatorship of Porfirio Díaz into a constitutional republic. First, it started with the people's dissatisfaction led by the upper class Francisco I. Madero who opposed the class and tyrannical rule of Porfirio Díaz who had been in power for more than 30 years (Carr, 1963, 1972). The people against his dictatorship, which was to be established through his relations with other politicians, and as well as Díaz's rule. Yet as it passed, it became a social struggle starting with the peasants and indigenous communities demanding radical change and social and economic reform. These groups fought for freedom from oppression and colonization, to achieve the betterment of working conditions, all issues that had not been agreed during Díaz's policies, which generally favored foreign investors and the Mexican elite (Hight, 2016). The revolution would eventually fall on revolutionary leaders and different factions had different views regarding the restoration of Mexico. Figures such as Francisco Zapata, who led the army "There is a Land!" (Land and Freedom) for the rights of peasants, and Francisco Villa, leading the guerrilla on behalf of the rural poor, who had different and contradictory motives and goals. However, when these factions collapsed, the revolution also ended the quest for the 1917 constitution, protecting civil liberties rights, land reforms, and a promise to defend Mexican sovereignty (Library of Congress, n.d.). The definition of the Mexican Revolution comes from a decade of revolutionary no longer as a quest in the struggle for political reform but a struggle for the restoration of Mexican identity, restoring an indigenous heritage and including social justice. The origin, development stages, and lasting impacts of the Mexican Revolution are covered through this study, showing how it changed Mexican identity as a movement defined by justice and oppression, how an authoritarian government efforts are made toward justice and democracy for all.

Madero's Goodwill Initiative | Porfirio Díaz

Porfirio Díaz, from September 11, 1876, to October 26, 1911, was a military and twice elected president of Mexico. Díaz was known for his harsh rule origin. Since the young age of 18, Díaz had been training for the priesthood. However, he became part of the army due to the Mexican-American War (1846-1848) (Library of Congress, 2016). A military career followed, including service in the War of the Reform. Then, in 1880, Díaz had made a name for himself, he resigned from the military returned and returned to his city, where power was restored. He was known throughout with the first Díaz administration. The alliance had to hold a protest against the 1877 reelection of Díaz, who died the following year. This continued his position as an oppositionist movement against President Sebastián Lerdo de Tejada in 1876, and even after he died in the United States City of America. He returned in 1878 and fought the government forces at the Battle of Tacuba (November 1876). In May of the following year, Díaz was formally elected President of Mexico (UTAH, n.d.).

Throughout the long regime of President of Mexico, Porfirio Díaz adopted many policies aimed at modernizing the country through infrastructure development and economic transformation. During his rule, he achieved the development of the railway system, which grew from a few isolated lines in 1850 to over 12,000 miles at the end of his rule, thus facilitating faster movement of goods and promoting mining and agricultural growth (Hansen, 1984). Nevertheless, his efforts were largely financed with revenues borrowed, especially from the United States and Britain, which, while bringing along economic development, had at the same time deepened the gap of foreign debt. Mexico's external creditors and their industries (Hansen, 1984).

His land reform policy also was highly significant and controversial. The policies could have significantly reduced social inequality, but being given and to local authorities and foreign capitalism (ITANL, n.d.). This ultimately prevented the wide-scale redistribution of peasant populations, taking away their ancestral lands, legal and otherwise, and making them more under increasingly exploitative conditions on large estates (Hansen, 1984). The consequences resulted in continued social unrest (Hansen).

In the political sphere, Díaz ensured that the governmental administration was controlled tightly through a policy of "give and take" (Hansen, 1984), rewarding his supporters with incentives while punishing his opponents (ITANL, n.d.). He implemented a complex machinery to control the country's districts, used the federal army's power to suppress opposition, and placed limitations on the press to limit opposing ideologies (Matta, 1987). Intellectuals, journalists and possible political opposition were either assimilated into his administration or suppressed through repression or forced displacement.

His most significant effects of Díaz's policies were economic. While prices (the Mexican peso) and monetary circulation rapidly grew, a parallel depression occurred, the economy was based on primary (Hansen, 1984). These sharp contrasts between the advancing urban areas and the stalled country side caused discontent at nearly every level of society. Workers grew restless as even the urban areas experienced the concentration of wealth among the elite, while peasants struggled even till then, provided a cumulative discontent (Hansen, 1984) through (Matta, 1987).

As Díaz grew older and his regime showed signs of deterioration, a mixture of social inequality, political repression, and economic exploitation became resented by the revolutionary movements. Unsuppressed economic issues (see below) finally boiled over and were reflected during the revolutionary outbreak of 1910, which gave way to the beginning of the end of his power from decades-long positions (ITANL, n.d.).

Formation of Madero and Carranza Regime

Francisco I. Madero came from a wealthy landowning family in Coahuila. He championed democracy and electoral reform. Carranza rose to the office of his state, who had political ties to Madero's district. Madero reached through to his 1909 book "The Presidential Succession in 1910," which contained a proposed new system and served as the catalyst for Madero's actions (Hansen & Matta, n.d.). The incident is a challenge Díaz to the presidential election of 1910 gathered widespread support and transformed Madero into the symbol of democratic change.

Madero's political movement was met with heavy repression, he was arrested, and the electoral process was openly rigged in favor of Díaz (Hansen & Matta, n.d.). In response to this, from exile in Texas, Madero issued the Plan of San Luis Potosí, which called for the removal of Díaz and called for a national assembly to elect Díaz (Matta, 1987). This event marked the formal beginning of the Mexican Revolution in November 1910. The plan had

remained in different colonies within Mexican society, often maintaining leaders like Pascual Quintanilla. Unlike northern Mexico (Hansen, 2007), but unlike

After Díaz's resignation in 1877, Juárez became president in a relatively uncontested process. His government was beset by structural problems. The weakness came and inheriting was to pass through local reform or deep change frustrated many of his early supporters, who were expecting much stronger action against the oligarchy of the old regime (Hendrick, 1987).

While the economic situation of Juárez seemed at least along a formal democratic system, Zapata was agitated for the complete redistribution of the land and the improvement of the peasant conditions (Hansen, 2007). From 1901 onward in Mexico, which was a result of Díaz's corrupt and rotten land policies, thousands of peasants would get involved in the struggle for the protection of the rural lands from the pressure of the hacienda owners (Hansen, 2007).

Following Juárez's dissatisfaction with Juárez's regulatory action regarding land reform, Zapata and his group published the Plan de Ayala in November 1911, rejecting Juárez's preliminary land laws. The proposal was designed to restore land rights every three for peasant class (Hansen, 2007). The proposal called for the redistribution of land and towards the following year the eventually passed legislation highlighting that land reform was not only key to the search for justice and equality within Mexico (Friedman, 2017).

The Rise of Victoriano Huerta

Following the presentation of the Plan de Ayala in November 1911, Francisco Zapata became President of Mexico, similar to the revolutionary movement. But his government faced ongoing economic problems. Juárez showed an extremely superficial political reform, such as the reduction of presidential terms and the removal of some of the most corrupt officials. For Zapata, whose revolution was essentially a demand for the immediate redistribution of land to the peasants, such measures were grossly insufficient (Hansen, 2007). Consequently, the General Secretariat of War was established under the goal of organizing land operations. Juárez's economic crisis was not popular with other former colleagues either (Hansen, 2007). In the words of Pascual Quintanilla (1911), general and representative for the efforts in supporting the Díaz regime, Juárez, who had been a loyal supporter of Juárez, grew more and more dissatisfied with the president's direction and the financial state of his reform policies. Because of these issues the country is becoming more chaotic, undermining Juárez's stability. Following a few days, Juárez changed only to distance both the conservative class who feared social changes and the radical revolutionaries who demanded immediate social change (Hansen, 2007).

In the middle of June when General Victoriano Huerta came from United States, Juárez had been called by Juárez with military support (Hansen et al., 2017). As direct military aid, Huerta provided himself as a replacement to Juárez's rule. However, he maintained communication with the established Federal military structure while pursuing conservative elements, which were essential to Juárez's attempt to restore liberalist politics (Hendrick, 2017). This double dealing was damage for Huerta's eventual goal of power.

In early February 1913, a coalition of influential political and military, including Pascual Quintanilla and his aging General Francisco Rojón, launched a rebellion in Mexico City (Hansen, 2007). The rebels took up positions in some key districts and began to break government positions.

The San Diego State

La Democracia Triunfa (The San Diego States, February 9, 1911, 1912).

His best move began on February 9, when he subtly tried to overthrow Malheur's government. To that end, Malheur rapidly ordered Thorne to deliver his request, demanding that with quelling the revolt (Hatchley et al., 2011).

Instead of pursuing Thorne, Thorne secretly conspired with the rebels, encouraged by U.S. Ambassador Harry Lane. Thorne, who was eager to take a more representative position upon to allow sharing the rule days off nation's affairs, Thorne worked behind the scenes to consolidate his support among leading businessmen, high-ranking military officers, and foreign consuls (Hatchley, 2011).

By February 15, Thorne's strategy was evident. The demand (Thorne's Malheur) and Vice President Fred Mader. Fred Mader under the pretext of "resolving issues" Malheur was forced to resign a position, and Thorne took his position, now presiding himself as the new president (Hatchley, 2011). In a matter of days, Malheur and Fred Mader were overthrown while continuing being forced to process, encouraging any hope for continued liberal rule (Hatchley, 2011).

Upon taking power, Thorne systematically cancelled many of the reforms Malheur had put in place, promised. He also severely and brutally suppressed all dissenters, especially those relating to a promised (promised) economic stimulating fund (Hatchley et al., 2011). Regarded by Malheur's representatives and accepted by Thorne's new opposition to corruption reform, Thorne's tactics were greatly strengthened by promises that had come to consider the Revolution's (Horne's) cause as exposed.

At the same, Pacho Villa, known as Michael Chertoff, gained a large base of support across the U.S. Although he was a first stepchild of the First the Youth, Villa's new campaign was driven by calls for justice, which brought him close to the anti-Eligible president's Malheur (Hatchley, 2011).

The Constitution and the Fall of Thorne

Following the coup orchestrated by Thorne and Thorne in 1911 and the subsequent suspension of Francisco J. Malheur, Vice President Carrasco, the Governor of Colorado, refused to be directly opposed to Thorne's government by participating in the Plan of Guadalupe on March 20, 1911 (Hatchley, 2011). By joining Thorne's regime, Carrasco created an official government state during his administration and designated himself as "Vice Chief" (Horne, 2011) of the Constitutional force. He promised to re-establish the Constitution of 1877, which Thorne had effectively dismantled (Horne, 2011). Carrasco retained not only political legitimacy but also prominent military since U.S. Army Major, who was known for his exceptional strategic sense and knowledge of modern military techniques (Hatchley, 2011).

Although key ally, although one who was distinguished by a degree of independence, was Pacho Villa, who had made no pretensions while fighting with Francisco Malheur in the rebellion against Porfirio Diaz (University of California, 2020). Regarding some critics, Villa was later remembered as a rebel under Malheur for his courage and tactical well-documented is creative. After Malheur's fall in 1912, Villa secretly encouraged Carrasco for his loyalty to the deposed president and that was the United States (Hatchley, 2011). Regarding Malheur, he called for immediate fighting force, the U.S. and the U.S. on which he counted upon. Carrasco's Malheur, was released, and frustrated parts of the northern state (Hatchley, 2011). Although Villa allied himself with Carrasco

and Felipe Carrillo Puerto in southern Yucatán. The alliance was weakened by differing visions, particularly between YTH and Carrasco, which would later signify that (a) each party after Huerta had been overthrown (University of California, 2020).

Paralleling these tensions, the Constituent Congress rejected Huerta in the second half of 1913 and early months of 1914. Though advanced from Mexico, constitutionally recognizing its capitulation with Carrasco's faction, while Yucatán Division had been subject to a strike with Huerta and Carrasco (Hos. 2021). Institutional development hindrance Huerta from the U.S. President Woodrow Wilson refused to recognize Huerta's government, allowing the flow of resources to the Constitutional and political base camp for Álvaro Obregón of California, 2021. The mission of Huerta by the United States in April 1914 resulted in complete Huerta's supply of foreign weapons. A critical point came on June 23, 1914, at the Battle of Carrizal, where YTH's forces took a major blow in the initial strike, losing large amounts of weaponry and shaking the morale of what remained of Huerta's military resources (MCHC, 5-6).

Facing external pressures from the army and diplomatic isolation, Huerta resigned on July 23, 1914, and went into exile (Hos. 2021). The revisionist Constitution, led by Carrasco, was rejected by Mexico City, resulting in a new constitution of constitutional government. Revolution, very quickly broke down. With almost no members of the military were aligned with Carrasco and the other power of post-Huerta regime, while Carrasco signed Huerta's terms signed document to the Huerta Ayala (University of California, 2020). Negotiations of peace to the Convention of Aguascalientes proved fruitless and the armed forces plan of civil war changed, all resulted in Carrasco, Huerta, and Ayala launched nearly military campaigns, while Carrasco continued the political scene in Mexico (MCHC, 5-6).

In the context of previous conflict, YTH constitutionally participated in negotiations with competing Mexican factions and succeeded in a military force from 1916 to 1917. Despite the differences among revolutionary leaders, the fact of Huerta was a critical turning point that helped lay down the way for the creation of the 1917 Constitution. The document implemented proposed a labor protection, national state ownership of natural resources, and limited the power structure of agrarian reform in Mexico. Even as civil wars continued to rage in various regions, the removal of Huerta from power ended the civil war era dominated role since Porfirio Díaz, ending the reign of Mexico's authoritarian dominating authoritarian regime.

The 1917 Constitution and Carrasco's Presidency (1917-1920)

In the aftermath of Huerta's downfall, the Constituent Congress, led by Senator Carrasco, set the stage for reforming Mexico (led by power of Carrasco). Carrasco called together a Constituent Congress in Querétaro during 1916. Bringing together delegates who would draft a document intended to end the civil war and address economic challenges that had afflicted Mexico through much of its history (University of California, 2020). The constituent Congress, in 1917, promulgated on February 5, a new constitution one of the most progressive constitutions of its time. Most of the provisions came from what the revolutionaries had agreed. Article 27 declared national ownership of all land and minerals, enabling the government to intervene land and regulate natural resources such as oil and minerals. Article 123 gave workers the right to an eight-hour workday, overtime pay, the right to strike, and to represent and elect their unions. Article 130 gave a limit to the usual religious religious organizations and government affairs, ending religious institutions in a more secular direction and limiting the influence of religious groups in public affairs (University of California, 2020).

When Carrasco was sworn in as president in 1977, he took on the daunting task of implementing such reforms as an extremely fractured nation. Despite the Government's violence and Carrasco was very cautious in proceeding with radical change. He showed prominent interest and was frequently consulting to understand the full scope of land distribution and labor practices surrounding cattle/ranching. (Diaz, 2020). The situation made many issues extremely difficult, as they believed that Carrasco was selling out the revolution (Library of Congress, 2021).

In 1978, Carrasco continued to bring the presidency open discussion brought about soon after.

The nation's revolutionary forces that were loyal to him, including Zapata and Villa, became disillusioned with his handling post-war situation opposition against him. Consequently, on April 10, 1978, a group of Carrasco-associated soldiers, Carlos (Miguel, 2021). A state news that a general, Clemente Escobar (now president of Mexico), in Tlaxcala, was making his return (government). Villa continued as a general with some President Adolfo de la Huerta, which proved to be a political action as the government is attacked by an American military operation (MST), 2021). While serving from 1978 to 1980, Villa was involved in the case of (Zapata, Escobar, 2021). Carrasco's career ended abruptly when he was ousted from his post in 1980, leaving Carrasco (1980) as one of the Revolution's most visible, and controversial, figures (Diaz, 2021). All of the turmoil within the 1977 Constitution is perhaps Carrasco's greatest legacy. This document laid the foundation for Mexico's modern government by creating provisions for labor, housing, education and social services, and providing the framework for which agrarian reform would be based. Although most of the programs were only partially realized during his presidency, it gave the government the means (political and social) to achieve its mission.

The Institutionalization of the Mexican Revolution

After decades of radical struggle, the Mexican Revolution began a slow transition from military dictatorship into a more institutionalized political system. Instead of continuing the quest for revolution, the revolutionary leaders sought to institutionalize the revolution's ideas and government policy and programs. This started with Adolfo Lopez, who was president after the military defeat of Francisco Villa in the 1920s. Lopez's aim was that Mexico could not withstand an ongoing series of revolutions that he hoped to resolve the country through political and economic reforms devoid of radicalism, without rights, and violence with the hope to prevent further unrest (Library of Congress). His capacity to deal with various revolutionary groups resulted in a power struggle in Mexico. From 1924 to 1928, a turbulent ten-year political history of struggle (Diaz, 2021).

Carrasco's significant efforts in institutionalizing the revolution. One of his achievements was the modification of the Partido Nacional Revolucionario (PNR) in 1929, which eventually evolved into the Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI) (Diaz, 2021). This political party was created to unite the different revolutionary groups and give legitimacy to the state's policy. The National Revolution was created. Rather than being gradually taking the power to him, the PNR offered a framework in which individuals could be involved with a strategic political process. Thus the presidency of Carrasco was secured by violence as stated in by the Mexican War (1928-1930), a key conservative Carrasco rose to power government policies containing the influence of the (Diaz, 2021).

Institutionalizing the Revolution was also being suggested during the presidency of Lázaro Cárdenas, who served from 1934 to 1940. Cárdenas continued land redistribution reform by distributing millions of acres to peasants in places as controlled during the efforts of Congress. He also incorporated Mexico's oil industry in 1938, founding PEMEX, the national oil company, and led to Mexican foreign control over the economy (Diaz, 2021).

Cardenas also encouraged the PRM (now the Partido de la Revolucion Mexicana (PRM)) in 1911 with greater than political experience for workers and peasants (Hitt, 2011).

This period of revolutionary state power while still protecting the ideas of the revolution. By the 1940s, the revolution was completely institutionalized. The PRM was eventually renamed the Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI) in 1946, and it ruled Mexican politics for most of the 20th century (Hitt, 2011). The government also nationalized industry, over land distribution, labor rights, and natural resources. The revolutionary state would be responsible for national policy. However, the PRI grew more authoritarian, becoming political opposition will happen elsewhere (Hitt, 2011).

The Legacy of the Revolution

The Institutionalization of the Mexican Revolution is a very complex and all-encompassing revolution. But the revolutionary state, the state of it were to build the political, social, and cultural life of Mexico. Although the revolution might have failed, it survived through government policy, labor movements, and the state of nature. Labor for social justice, land reform, labor rights, and natural resources. However, the state of the revolution was complicated in its long-term significance. While the political system and economic structure of Mexico did change, much of what it provided remains only partly realized to this day. Labor failed a legacy called with institutionalization of Mexican History (2011). This can be seen by the expansion of natural labor rights, especially within the presidency of Lázaro Cárdenas, what is the aggressive process of land distribution goes both in the rural system, where millions of acres were transferred into the hands of peasant communities. This policy was inspired by Cardenas' famous speech and the Plan de Agua Prieta's emphasis of addressing long-standing grievances from rural Mexicans who large hacienda system had destroyed. Workers rights also found their institutionalization within the revolution, as a provision within the constitution of 1917, which granted them rights with some right like working day, right to strike, and social security benefits. While these policies aimed to promote equality of rights within workers, land reform also eventually drew down after Cardenas and in the later half of the 20th century, many of the policies continued to be ruled as justice (Mexican Ministry of Anthropology, 2011). The revolution also had great success in democratizing and restoring the rule of law in Mexico and labor rights. In the revolution, workers took part both as soldiers, land reformers, and played a great variety of aggressive tactics (Mexican Ministry of Anthropology, 2011). They fought against rural, political, industrial, and other national haciendas and in the industrial revolution (Library of Congress). Despite with great contributions, however, workers largely remained excluded from the formal political power of the post-revolutionary period. The new government did not immediately give them the right to vote, with equality of gender with a promise to take action for women that, in fact, it was not until 1931 that women in Mexico were granted the right to vote. The legacy of the revolution took a strong meaning in Mexican history, representing resistance and fighting for justice (Mexican Ministry of Anthropology, 2011).

The cultural legacy of the revolution has deep roots in Mexican national identity, art, and literature. It gave birth to the art movement of Mexican modernism (rural painting that depicted the revolutionary ideal and indigenous heritage through large-scale public murals). Artists like Diego Rivera, José Clemente Orozco, and David Alfaro Siqueiros used their works to illustrate struggles of peasants and workers, to glorify revolutionary heroes, and to point out social inequalities (Mexican Ministry of Anthropology, 2011). Besides the field of the visual arts, the revolution influenced Mexican music and literature, most especially through a form of folk ballads called corridos, which narrated heroic, romantic, and stories of revolutionary figures. In such a way, artists' expression kept the

essence of the revolution there is people's struggle and political movement, justice, and national pride.

Politically, though the Institutional Revolutionary Party claimed to stand for the ideals of the revolution, it gradually became more and more authoritarian, controlling elections, suppressing dissent, and consolidating power. The PRI itself was a dominant party, with little competition for most of the 20th century, often being held accountable to justify its actions (Library of Congress). Though the PRI adopted policies at home with revolutionary ideas, such as redistributionism and nationalization of industries, corruption and economic issues from the late 19th century persisted, leading into questions whether the party still represented what the revolution was all about. The year 2000 marked the end of the long rule of the PRI, when an opposition party actually won the election – an indication of the decline of one-party dominance in Mexico from much of the 20th century toward liberal democracy (Anthropology, 2010).

Under the legacy of the revolution, schools, culture, and society. Besides the Constitution of 1917 as a source and root of its regulations regarding labor rights and land distribution and thus setting the tone for Mexico's future economic development, the concept and many of the promises of the revolution remain fulfilled. The revolution set in progress Mexico's identity as a sovereign, socially conscious nation, inspiring further movements concerning workers' rights, religious rights, and political reform (National Museum of American History, 2019). The revolution's ideals lay out to Mexican culture, politics, and education, serving as both a foundation for progress and a reminder of the country's ongoing struggles for justice and equality.

Conclusion

The Mexican Revolution was one of the most significant events in Mexican history, one shaped by grassroots energy and national identity. What started as a rebellion in one Porfirian state turned into a ten-year battle, with multiple leaders and factions vying for control. While Francisco I. Madero, Emiliano Zapata, Pancho Villa, and Venustiano Carranza all had different visions for the future of the country, they shared a common goal: overthrowing the dictatorship and repression that had defined Mexico for decades. The revolution achieved great political reform, including the Constitution of 1917, which formalized land reform, labor rights, and limits on foreign ownership. However, while these reforms were significant, they did not solve all of Mexico's problems, and many of the revolutionary promises were only partially fulfilled.

Over time, the revolution was institutionalized, particularly under Lázaro Cárdenas, who oversaw significant reform and international relations. The foundation of the Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI) in 1929 solidified Mexico's governing system, but also led to decades of one-party rule, corruption, and political stagnation. Though the revolution paved the way for a more democratic society, the PRI's dominance often meant that real political progress was limited until 2000, when a opposition party finally won the presidency.

The revolution also had a lasting impact on Mexican society and culture. Women played significant roles in the struggle, both at the front and behind the lines, but were largely excluded from the political benefits of the revolution, and it took not until 1935 that women were given the vote. The revolution also inspired a cultural movement, as individuals like Diego Rivera and José Clemente Orozco created works that celebrated the struggles of workers and indigenous people. Despite the gains made, much of the structural issues of the revolution persist to this day. Economic inequality remains a problem, land reform has stalled, and corruption continues to plague the nation. Yet the revolution made Mexico a country that cherishes its independence, social justice, and national identity. It sets a revolutionary tone with a complex legacy, given and reflected, unity and diversity, but it laid the

presented the results of the survey. After that, the group met, the report was read by all, and a resolution on the survey of the region was adopted. Below are some of them:

The reported historically significant political actions, such as the Constitution of 1917, a 1944 proclamation, 1946 on land, 1947 on rights, and 1948 on the right to work, (however) did not reflect the views of those in power, who did not reflect all of the country's political history, and most of the problems of the historical community were not reflected.

One of the participants, László Csikós, who presented a paper on the historical and political situation, said that the participants were, overall, the resolution. The National Revolutionary Party (NRP) founding in